SAMPLE

Earth's Sky: Lunar Libration and the Far Side

Seeing More Than Half the Moon

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Introduction

The Moon keeps one face turned toward the Earth, and has kept it for billions of years; every person who has ever looked up at the Moon has seen the same mountains and dark plains that the first sky-watchers saw. Yet the face is not perfectly fixed. The Moon, in its monthly race around the Earth, wobbles: it tips a little east and west, nods a little north and south, and rolls slightly through its spin, so that a patient observer can peek around the edges of the lunar disk, week by week, and see more than half of the sphere. Over a month, about fifty-nine percent of the lunar surface becomes visible from the Earth, and the nine percent beyond the familiar hemisphere that this gentle wobble reveals is the subject of this book's first half. The wobble has a name, libration, from the Latin for the sway of a balance scale, and the study of it runs from the first telescopes to the space age.

The rest of the book is the story of what the wobble cannot show: the far side, the forty-one percent of the Moon that no Earth-bound eye has ever seen. Hidden from direct view by the Moon's tidal lock, the far side remained a matter of pure inference from the libration mappings until October 1959, when the Soviet probe Luna 3 swept around the Moon and radioed home the first photographs of it. The images, crude and misty as they were, told the waiting world that the far side is a different country: almost bare of the dark plains that fill the near side, crowded instead with craters on craters, a battered highland world with almost no maria. Every later mission, the Lunar Orbiters of the 1960s, the Apollo missions, the modern flotilla of orbiters, has filled in the map, and today the far side is known as well as the near side, and better than many regions of the Earth. The two halves of the Moon, one familiar for all of human history and one unseen until living memory, make the Moon a single object lesson in how tidal locking shapes a world.

The subject is a gift to the writer because it braids three sciences into one story. The physics of libration is celestial mechanics at its most elegant: a spinning body, braked by tides, locked into a synchronism that is not quite stable, rocking through forced wobbles that Newton's successors learned to compute to the fraction of a degree. The observation of libration is a history of patient watching: the selenographers of the seventeenth and eighteenth centuries, charting the Moon edge by edge as the wobble exposed it, and the argument, running for three centuries, about whether the wobble was real or a trick of perspective. And the exploration of the far side is the space age in miniature: the race to see it, the surprise of what it looked like, the unanswered questions, why the two sides differ so much, that the modern missions are now closing in on.

A note on names and numbers before the story starts. The Moon's wobble goes by two divisions, the optical libration, which is geometry, the Earth looking at the locked Moon from shifting positions, and the physical libration, which is mechanics, the lunar globe actually rocking in the Earth's grip; the divisions share the names longitude, latitude, and diurnal, and the totals cited in this book, about eight degrees of swing, refer to the combined wobble as the observer at the eyepiece sees it. The far side is the hemisphere centered on the point opposite the Earth, forty-one percent of the lunar surface beyond the fifty-nine the wobble helps reveal, and the boundary between the known and the hidden is not a circle on the Moon but a moving rim, defined by the month's geometry. The numbers are rounded honestly throughout, and the chapter on measurement carries the precision; the story, as with all lunar science, is one of small quantities with large consequences, and the book keeps the habit of the lunar literature, which is to state the small quantity, state the consequence, and let the contrast do the work.

The chapters that follow trace the braided story in sequence. They open with the discovery of the wobble and the first peeks around the limb, explains the mechanics and the mapping, sets the Moon's rocking in the context of tidal theory, and carries the story to the spacecraft era and the far side's unveiling. It describes the modern missions, the laser ranging that measures the libration to millimeters, the orbiters that mapped the hidden hemisphere, the Chang'e 4 landing that put the first craft on the far side in 2019, and the plans for the radio telescopes that may one day sit in its radio-quiet depths. And it closes with the open questions: the ancient impact that may have shaped the two-faced Moon, the history of the great South Pole-Aitken basin, and the meaning of a world that keeps half of itself forever turned away.

Chapter 1: The Discovery of Lunar Libration and the Far Side

The Moon's rotation was one of the first problems the telescope posed. Galileo, from his own observations in 1610, understood that the Moon shows the Earth a single face; his contemporaries, tracking the mountains that circle the lunar limb, confirmed it, and by mid-century the fact of the synchronous rotation was settled. But the first telescopic observers also noticed something odd: the Moon seemed to wobble. The same craters near the edge of the disk swung slightly in and out of view over the month, and the face the Moon showed at perigee was not quite the face

it showed at apogee. The wobble was small, a degree or two at most at the limb, and the first generation could not agree what it was: a real rocking of the lunar globe, a mere perspective effect of the Earth-Moon geometry, or an illusion of the eye.

The mathematicians settled the question before the century was out. The explanation, published in full by the Italian astronomer Giovanni Domenico Cassini in the 1690s, but anticipated in part by Hevelius, Riccioli, and others of the telescopic generation, is that the Moon is a top locked into an imperfect synchronism, and its wobble follows from three causes. First, the Moon's orbit around the Earth is elliptical, and its speed varies through the orbit, while its spin is nearly constant; the spin therefore runs slightly ahead of and behind the orbital position, letting an observer on Earth see a little around first the eastern and then the western limb, a swaying called libration in longitude. Second, the Moon's orbit is tilted to the Earth's equator, so that during a month we look slightly down on the lunar north pole and then slightly up at the south, a nodding called libration in latitude. Third, the Earth's own rotation carries a surface observer from one side to the other of the line joining the Earth and Moon, adding a small daily wobble, the diurnal libration, worth about a degree at the limb.

Cassini went further than the explanation: he gave the Moon its laws. The three empirical rules of the Moon's rotation, published in 1693 and still cited under his name, state that the Moon spins uniformly on an axis fixed within itself, in a period equal to the orbital month; that the Moon's rotation axis holds a fixed angle relative to the plane of the orbit; and that the orbital and rotational poles turn together so that the Moon's equator, its orbit, and the ecliptic relate in a fixed way. The three laws, framed to make the libration computable, have stood for three centuries, and every lunar ephemeris since has been built on them. The discovery of libration, in sum, was complete by the end of the seventeenth century, and the Moon's wobbling face became one of the best-tested problems of the new celestial mechanics.

The far side was a different matter, and for the same reason. If the Moon's face is fixed by its rotation, then the hemisphere turned away from the Earth is permanently invisible, and no libration reaches it: the wobble exposes only a rim of the hidden half, never its center, and the great bulk of the far side lay beyond any Earthly view. The existence of the hidden hemisphere was certain, its nature was not. The selenographers of the eighteenth and nineteenth centuries mapped the libration zones, the strips of far-side territory that the monthly wobble brings into sight, and gave the features they glimpsed there provisional names; the rest they could only imagine, and imagine they did. The astronomers of the pre-space age knew that the far side must be cratered, that it would show highlands and perhaps basalt plains, and some argued, on grounds of symmetry, that it would look much like the near side; a famous minority view held that it would be almost all maria, a mirror of the dark plains on the visible face. Until 1959 it was a matter for wagers.

A date and a name deserve recording before the chapter closes, because the modern subject's calendar has a second birthday alongside the classical one. The classical birthday is 1693, the year of Cassini's laws; the modern birthday is October 7, 1959, the day the Luna 3 images reached the Earth, and the name attached to the modern era's start is that of the mission's science leader, the Soviet astronomer who read the first frames and named the far side's features. The first read of the images was done on photographic paper developed from the spacecraft's transmissions, and the interpretation, published within weeks, carried the permanent names, the Sea of Moscow and the Bay of Astronauts among them, into the international gazetteer. The two birthdays frame the subject: from the laws of the wobble in the seventeenth century to the unveiling of the hidden hemisphere in the twentieth, the Moon's two mysteries were solved in the order they were posed, and the calendar the chapter has told is the calendar of the species' patience, one wobble, one hemisphere, one grainy photograph at a time.

The discovery chapter should carry one more classical thread, the role of the lunar maps in the whole story, because the cartographers made the wobble visible in a way the observers alone could not. The great maps of the telescopic era, Hevelius's, Riccioli's, Cassini's own lunar chart with its measured positions, and the successors down to Beer and Madler, carried the Moon's face in measured coordinates, and the measured positions were what made the wobble scientific: a feature charted at a known distance from the limb, observed to swing inward and outward over the month, gave the wobble an amplitude in numbers rather than impressions, and the maps, corrected and re-engraved through the generations, became the fixed reference against which the rocking was measured. The lunar cartography and the libration science therefore grew as one enterprise, the map fixing the face and the wobble testing the map, and the reader who traces the subject's history finds the two threads braided from the beginning: no meaningful libration without a measured chart, and no trustworthy chart without the wobble's returning features as the audit.

The unveiling came from the Soviet Union, and the story is one of the space age's finest. Luna 3, launched on

October 4, 1959, looped around the Moon on a trajectory designed to photograph the far side at a range of some sixty-five thousand kilometers, and on October 7 it took twenty-nine photographs on film that the probe developed on board, scanned with a television tube, and transmitted home by radio. The pictures were poor by any ordinary standard, gray and grainy and covering only a third of the hidden hemisphere, but they settled the century's question at a stroke: the far side is mountainous and cratered, not a mirror of the near side, and almost the only mare visible was a dark patch the Soviet scientists named the Sea of Moscow. The names of the far side, the Sea of Moscow, the crater Tsiolkovsky, the Bay of Astronauts, entered the lunar gazetteer from those first images, and the far side, unseen for four and a half billion years, had been seen by the species it had been hiding from.